

JOACHIM OF FLORA: A CRITICAL SURVEY

By GEORGE LA PIANA

ABOUT the year 1170, Odo, prior of Canterbury and later abbot of Battle, wrote a letter of edification to one of his novices describing the great spiritual opportunities and privileges offered by monastic life. Among other things, the learned and saintly prior outlined a theological interpretation of universal history in this fashion:

O admirable mystery and admirable sacrament! God gave to the hearts of men a First Testament which was called Natural Law; had they observed it, they would not have needed another. But being lovers of novelty, men neglected it, when it grew old, and God gave them a Second Testament in the Circumcision, which some adopted with a certain willingness on account of its novelty. But this also became old and was neglected, hence God gave a Third Testament in the Baptism which is predestined to remain for eternity. Yet when this too became old through long use, men gradually began to be neglectful of it, and God gave them a Fourth Testament in the Monastic Cowl (*cuculla*) to the novelty of which almost the whole world, lover of novelties, has now turned. After this, there will not be a fifth one, because in this all the benedictions granted to all peoples are contained. All religion and all holiness contained in the three previous Testaments, are condensed in the Testament of St Benedict.¹

The idea of successive revelations was fundamental in the Christian system of salvation from the very beginning. By it Christianity justified its own existence as a second revelation superseding that of the Old Testament, and also looked confidently toward the future in the expectation of the *parousia* which would usher in the new Kingdom of God. Very soon also, with the development of the trinitarian doctrine, the three stages of revelation were put in relation to the three Persons of the Trinity. These ideas recur through the centuries in the Christian tradition in both orthodox and heretical circles. The only difference which gradually brought a distinction between two tendencies on this point was that one identified the third stage with the eternal life, according to the thought expressed long before by St Ambrose: 'umbra in lege, imago in evangelio, veritas in coelestibus,' while the other identified it with an intermediary period between the present dispensation of the Son (the Christian Church) and the final consummation in the eternal life.

The English prior was thus only repeating in his own way a belief with which Christianity was familiar. The only point which seems new in his statement is the addition of a Fourth Testament *in cuculla*, that is to say,

¹ Ernst Benz, 'La Messianità di S. Benedetto,' in *Ricerche Religiose* (Rome, July, 1931), pp. 336-353.

a fourth revelation contained in the monastic Rule of St Benedict, which, according to the pious prior, was at that time converting the whole world to monastic life. This new revelation, however, this *sacramentum cucullae* did not imply the abolition of the *sacramentum baptismi* of the former stage, for this was 'predestined to remain for ever.' The new revelation was merely to be superimposed upon it as a final and more effective way of salvation.¹

This extraordinary importance assigned to the Rule of St Benedict, put almost at the same level with the Gospel, and the emphasis upon monastic life as a new and final device for the salvation of the world, is characteristic of the twelfth century. It is connected with the Cistercian movement. Under the leadership of St Bernard of Clairvaux, the Cistercian order spread all over Catholic Europe within the short compass of a few years, and became a force that affected profoundly not only the religious but also the political, social, and economic conditions of western civilization.

Apocalyptic hopes and ideas which never failed to come to the surface when mediaeval society was passing through troublesome periods of wars and invasions, social adjustments and economic pressure, or terrible epidemics, turned in the twelfth century toward the powerful monastic revival as to a new sign of incoming radical changes, or as a new revelation by which old promises and expectations were finally to be fulfilled. Such expectations were, so to speak, in the air; they were cherished especially in religious and ascetic circles, and assumed different forms in various countries and various environments. As a matter of fact, at exactly the same time in which the English prior was thus instructing his novices, another and far more important man, Joachim of Flora, was writing in the extreme South of Italy his famous apocalyptic message expounded also in a bold biblical and theological interpretation of universal history.

A member of the Cistercian order, the Calabrian prophet found that the evil of relaxation was already creeping among its ranks. He therefore started a new monastic branch, the Florentian order, with the mission of preserving in full the Cistercian monastic austerity. From the high solitude of La Sila, where he established his monastery of St John of Flora, his reputation as a prophet and a holy man spread all over Italy and beyond the Alps, and his writings heralded a spiritual movement that lasted several centuries.

The Florentian order, which lasted until the sixteenth century, had an unobtrusive history; its members took no active part in the Joachite movement. The latter found its most devoted adepts among the Spiritual

¹ The idea that the monastic initiation was a *sacramentum* was old in the English tradition. In the *Iudicia Theodori*, it is said: 'ordinatio monachi . . . secundum baptismum est, iuxta indicium patrum, et omnia peccata dimittuntur sicut in baptismo' (P. W. Finsterwalder, *Canones Theodori*, p. 239).

Franciscans and other religious men. The oldest biography of Joachim was written by a former disciple of his, Lucas, a Cistercian from Casamari, later abbot of Corazzo and finally archbishop of Cosenza. But it has reached us only in a fragmentary state.¹ It was only in the seventeenth century that Giacomo Greco first, and Gregorio de Lauro afterwards, published long narratives of Joachim's life and miracles, deriving their material mostly from legendary sources.² Lucas' fragments, these later biographies, and a few other additional sources were utilized by Papebroch for the account of Joachim in the *Acta Sanctorum*.

Several treatises written by Joachim were published in Venice at the beginning of the century; the *Concordia Veteris et Novi Testamenti* (Simon de Luere, 1519), the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* (F. Bindoni, 1527), and the *Psalterium Decem Chordarum* (F. Bindoni, 1527). At the same period, other apocalyptic writings also purporting to belong to Joachim, but in fact due to later Joachimites, were published both in Venice and elsewhere. From that time to the middle of the nineteenth century, though Joachim's name was never forgotten, thanks especially to Dante, who put him in heaven next to St Francis and St Bonaventura:

L'abate calavrese Giovacchino
di spirito profetico dotato,

his life and works were little known. F. A. Gervaise, a French priest who had a weakness for prophetic literature, wrote and published an *Histoire de l'abbé Joachim de Flore, surnommé le Prophète, religieux de l'Ordre de Cîteaux, Fondateur de la Congrégation de Flore en Italie, avec l'analyse de ses ouvrages; ou l'on voit l'accomplissement de ses prophéties sur les Papes, sur les Empereurs, sur les Rois, sur les États et sur tous les Ordres Religieux*; 2 vols. (Paris: Giffat, 1745), a book in which legends and imagination had free course.

The rising interest in the history of mediaeval heretical movements about the middle of the nineteenth century brought about also a revival of studies on Joachim and the Joachimites. C. U. Hahn, in the third volume (1850) of his *Geschichte der Ketzer im Mittelalter*, gave not only an account of Joachim's life according to the sources collected in the *Acta SS.*, and an outline of his teaching, but also copious extracts from his works taken from the editions of the sixteenth century. The historians began gradually to realize that Joachim's life and thought formed, so to speak, one of the first links of a long chain; that there was an unbroken continuity of spiritual influences,

¹ *Acta Sanctorum* [May], vii, 89 ff., 1688.

² G. Greco, *Joachim Abbat et Florentis ordinis Chronologia* (Cosenza, 1612); G. de Lauro, *Magni Divinique Prophetæ abbatis Joachim Hergasiarum apologetica sive mirabilium veritas defensa* (Naples, 1660). Another similar biography by Gabriele Bario, *Joachimi Abbatis vita*, was published in Venice, 1639.

tendencies, and definite traditions from the doctrines and ideals of the Calabrian abbot to Francis of Assisi and the primitive Franciscan program of religious life, and then to the Spirituals, with their Joachite apocalyptic views and their adherence to the strict form of Franciscan poverty, and finally down to the later forms of ascetic, mystic, and anti-ecclesiastical movements that preceded the Reformation and even persisted afterwards.

But to disentangle the many knotty problems connected with Joachim's life and teaching was not an easy task. The critical exploration of the mediaeval historical and doctrinal sources was still at its beginning; furthermore, important writings of Joachim were still unpublished, and copies of those published in the sixteenth century were rare and not easily accessible. There was also a great deal of confusion and uncertainty as to the authenticity of so many works going under his name, and, last but not least, the obscurity of his thought, the amazing complexity of his scriptural exegesis, and the prophetic emphasis of his style were so many obstacles that deterred scholars from undertaking a thorough exploration of Joachim's life, writings, and influence. For several decades after the appearance of Hahn's book, the excerpts from Joachim's works given there were practically the sole original source used not only by writers of mediaeval religious history in their treatment of this point, but even by writers of monographs and special studies on the Calabrian abbot. Neither Rousselot (*Histoire de l'Evangile Eternel*, Paris, 1861; *Études d'histoire religieuse aux XII^e et XIII^e siècles*, Paris, 1867) nor E. Renan ('Joachim de Flore et l'Evangile Eternel,' in *Revue des Deux Mondes*, 1866, reprinted in *Nouvelles Études d'Histoire religieuse*, Paris, 1884) seems to have been acquainted with any large part of the original Joachite literature. These works, however, especially Renan's, beside throwing some lights on several problems of the Joachite tradition, were very useful in awakening more interest in the subject. On the other hand, some of their contentions, as for instance Renan's emphatic insistence on the Byzantine and eastern origins of Joachim's ideas, were taken as almost dogmatic truth and up to now have been looked upon as final.

The problem of the authentic writings of Joachim was obviously the first that had to be settled, in order to give a sound basis to any further investigation. The task was assumed, but in a negative sense, by W. Preger ('Das Evangelium Aeternum und Joachim von Floris', in *Abhandlungen d.hist.Klasse d. bayer. Akad. d. Wiss.*, XII, 1874, and volume I of his *Geschichte der deutschen Mystik im Mittelalter*, Leipzig, 1874), who denied the authenticity of even the *Concordia*, the *Expositio*, and the *Psalterium*. A convincing refutation of Preger's denial was not slow to appear in H. Reuter's *Geschichte der religiösen Aufklärung im Mittelalter* (Berlin, 1877). All possible doubts of Joachim's authorship of those works were more completely dispelled a few years later by H. Denifle (*Archiv f. Litteratur- und Kirchengeschichte d. Mittelalters*, I, 1885).

Meanwhile F. Tocco (*L'Eresia nel medio Evo* [Florence, 1884], 'L'Evangelo Eterno,' in *Archivio Storico Italiano*, 1886, and later, in *Studi Francescani* [Naples, 1909]), utilizing not only the work of his predecessors, but also the published and some of the unpublished treatises of Joachim, described more in detail and with closer reference to their medieval setting and connections Joachim's doctrines and their historical interpretation. Unfortunately, however, Tocco's presentation was not only incomplete, but also incorrect in many points. He not only rejected the authenticity of the *Tractatus Super Quatuor Evangelia*, but also emphasized still more Renan's assumption of the eastern origins of Joachim's ideas and misunderstood in general the real content and meaning of very important aspects of Joachim's teaching.¹ But in spite of its limitations, Tocco's work marked a step forward in the knowledge of Joachimism and its influence upon the Franciscan movement, and, in general, in assigning to it a prominent place in the whole religious and spiritual history of the late Middle Ages. For many years Tocco's *L'Eresia nel medio evo* remained the authoritative source of information about Joachim, and even such a brilliant writer as E. Gebhart (*L'Italie mystique*, 1890) but recast in a charming style Tocco's conclusions, adding little or nothing of his own.

A more definite progress in the studies of the Joachite movement and indirectly of Joachim himself was made by the publication of H. Denifle's 'Das Evangelium Aeternum und die Commission von Anagni'² followed by the text of the 'Protocol of Anagni' (*Archiv f. Lit. u. Kirchengesch. d. Mittelalters*, 1, 1885). In 1254, there appeared in Paris a book entitled *Introductorius in Evangelium Aeternum*, which made an immense sensation. The University of Paris, engaged in that period in an acute conflict with the Mendicant orders which were trying to bring under their control the Theological Faculty, grasped the opportunity to denounce the book to the Pope in the expectation that its conviction of heresy would inflict a blow upon the friars, for the book was undoubtedly the work of one of them. The Pope appointed a committee to pass judgment over it. From the report of the committee published by Denifle and from his learned study on its content, it was made clear that the book was mostly a compilation of passages from the three main works of Joachim, but with a new interpretation of them, by which it was assumed that Joachim's writings formed the Eternal Gospel of

¹ H. Denifle, *Archiv f. Lit. u. Kirchengeschichte*, 1, 52 ff. and Buonaiuti, *Tractatus* (Introduction).

² Denifle's study, besides throwing complete light on the Anagni episode, discussed the question of the authenticity of Joachim's writings, and furnished a list of the manuscripts of Joachim found in European libraries. I do not find mentioned in the list the MS of the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* in the *Codex Harl. 3969* (14th cent.) of the British Museum, and I am not sure whether it has been noticed by others.

the new revelation, that the Franciscan order was the new monastic institution foretold by Joachim as the 'populus novus' of the Third Age, and that St Francis was the Angel of Revelation, 'the angel who had the seal of the living God.'

Denifle established beyond doubt that the author of it was the Franciscan Gerard of Borgo S. Donnino — as it had been already affirmed by the contemporary Salimbene — who belonged to the Franciscan-Joachite group of Hugh of Digne, with which the general of the order, John of Parma, was in full sympathy. The book was condemned, and later three of the Joachite friars with John of Parma himself, were tried by the Order under the generalship of Bonaventura and condemned to long imprisonment.

A series of monographs and studies which followed Denifle's work, such as F. Ehrle's 'Die Spiritualen' (*Archiv f. Lit. u. Kirchengesch.*, 1885–1888), 'Petrus Olivi, sein Leben u. seine Schriften' (*ibid.*, 1887), J. C. Huck's *Ubertinus von Casale und dessen Ideenkreis* (Freiburg, 1903), D. S. Muzzey's *The Spiritual Franciscans* (New York, 1907), K. Balthaser's *Geschichte des Armutstreites im Franziskanerorden* (Münster, 1911), the studies of Callaey on *Franciscan Idealism*, and many others, all threw new light on the close connection of the Joachite tradition with the religious, spiritual, and intellectual life of the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries.

The necessity of further and more detailed investigation of the life and message of the Calabrian Prophet was now fully recognized. J. C. Huck did not hesitate to warn the historians that, if they wished to understand thoroughly the character of the religious spirituality of the late Middle Ages and the process of development which had its highest manifestation in the *Divine Comedy*, they should begin by an exhaustive exploration of the personality and the message of Joachim of Flora (*Ubertinus v. Casale*, p. 8).

Since 1878, E. Reuter had questioned the historical value of the ancient biography of Joachim written by Lucas, and still more, of the biographies of the seventeenth century. Further observations on the same point were made by E. Schott ('Joachim von Floris u. die Apokalyptiker des Mittelalters,' in *Zeitschrift f. Kirchengeschichte*, 1901), who gave also a good analysis of Joachim's doctrines ('Die Gedanken des Abtes Joachim von Floris,' *ibid.*, 1902). On the apocalyptic aspect of Joachim's message, a remarkable contribution was made by New Testament scholars dealing with Christian apocalyptic literature, who traced its revivals and survivals even in later times from the point of view of their connections with early traditions and sources. Especially W. Bousset gave an admirable and complete outline of Joachim's apocalyptic interpretation in the introduction of his 'Offenbarung Johannis' (Meyers, *Kritisch-exegetischer Kommentar über das N. T.*, Göttingen, 1906).

The philosophical-theological side of Joachim's teaching was the subject of an interesting study by P. Fournier, the French scholar well known for his admirable works on the mediaeval sources and collections of Canon Law. In three essays (1886, 1889, 1900) reprinted together in his *Études sur Joachim de Flore et ses doctrines* (1909), Fournier tried to link Joachim's theology with the trinitarian doctrine of Gilbert de la Porrée in opposition to the teaching of Hugh of St Victor and Peter Lombard. As a matter of fact, Joachim wrote on the Trinity and against Peter Lombard a short treatise which after his death was condemned at the Lateran Council of 1215. According to Fournier, Joachim's trinitarian doctrine is identical with that of the Porretanus, so that 'Gilbert de la Porrée, quoiqu'il ne se donnât pas pour un prophète, fut l'ancêtre lointain des sectes nombreuses qui, comme les Spirituels et les Fraticelles, se sont nourries des rêves empruntés aux écrits de l'abbé de Flore' (Introduction, p. vi).

The link of connection between Joachim and the teaching of Gilbert is found by Fournier in an unpublished treatise, *Liber de vera philosophia*, written between 1180 and 1190. In this work, we find on the one hand a defense of the doctrine of Gilbert and a violent attack against his many opponents, among them St Bernard, Hugh of St Victor, and especially Peter Lombard. On the other hand, from the sentences quoted from Joachim's now lost *Treatise on the Trinity* in the decree of the Lateran Council, and from passages of his other extant writings, especially the *Psalterium*, it appears that there is not only a similarity but even a complete identity of views between Joachim and the author of the *De Vera Philosophia*. At first Fournier proposed to assign outright to Joachim the authorship of this treatise, but later preferred to suggest only a close relation between its author and Joachim.

The trinitarian controversy of the twelfth century was to be traced primarily to a difference of method between Greek and Latin theology in the exposition of the doctrine of the Trinity. St Augustin, and in general the Latin theologians, starting from the unity of God, only subsequently consider the Divine Persons as being logically posterior to the one divine Nature. Following Augustin, Latin theology is very fond of using the analogy of the three main powers of the human soul to throw light on the mystery of the unity of nature and the distinction of Person in the Godhead. Greek theology, on the contrary, starts from the notion of three distinct Persons; personality is treated as logically prior to nature. This divergence in method in a doctrine where the line between orthodoxy and heresy is very thin, exposes the former to the danger of Modalism, or of reducing the three divine Persons to mere modes of existence of the one God, and the latter to the risk of exaggerating the distinction of Persons to the point of Tritheism. Gilbert de la Porrée, following the Greek rather than the Latin

tradition, seems to have crossed the danger line, but at the same time it appeared to him and to his followers that Hugh of St Victor and Peter Lombard, in their statement of the Latin doctrine, had fallen into heresy by either professing a disguised modalism, or worse, by making of the Divine Essence a kind of fourth God.

There is no doubt that Joachim, likewise following the tradition of Greek theology, shared the same views as the school of Gilbert as to the unorthodox character of the teaching of Peter Lombard. The importance of this question in Joachim's history lies in the fact that his trinitarian doctrine forms the necessary counterpart of his historical mystical doctrine of the three ages. Each of them is submitted to the distinct activity of each of the three divine persons: the age of the Father beginning with the Creation, the age of the Son beginning with the Redemption, and the Age of the Spirit, which was expected to begin definitely during the thirteenth century. The division of the three Persons in the dogmatic sphere was the necessary premise of the division of their individual activity in history.

Fournier's contention was that the starting point of Joachim's theological-historical system was exactly his trinitarian doctrine, inherited from the Greeks and developed under the influence of the school of Gilbert. Joachim started his career as a religious teacher, as a theologian; it was only by applying to the field of history his theological premises that he was led to expound his historical interpretation. Furthermore, Fournier gave in one of his essays a more detailed and more comprehensive outline of Joachim's system, using not only the printed works, but also the manuscripts, especially of the *Tractatus Super Quatuor Evangelia* from which he quoted large extracts throwing no little light on several important points, as for instance, upon Joachim's severe judgments of the Greek Church and his attachment to the Latin Church and the authority of the Papacy.

Both the two main conclusions of Fournier's studies, the one which connects Joachim's theology with the tradition of Gilbert de la Porrée, and the other which finds in the trinitarian doctrine the source of Joachim's historical interpretation, have now been rejected, but Fournier's essays, besides being still of great value, retain the merit of having first explored this aspect of Joachim's teaching, so important for the understanding of his whole system.

In the religious literature of the post-war period, the contributions to the knowledge of Joachim's life, times, and doctrines have been numerous, and some of them of exceptional merit. G. Bondatti's *Gioachinismo e Francescanesimo nel Duecento* (Rome, 1924) is a useful and well-informed survey of the Joachite movement among the Franciscans, but adds nothing that is new to the history of it. Such, however, is not the case with the work of H. Grundmann, *Studien über Joachim von Floris* (Leipzig, 1927), which

marked an immense progress in Joachite studies. After a substantial introduction dealing with the literature of the subject and with the question of Joachim's genuine writings, their chronology, and the sources of Joachim's history, Grundmann presents in four chapters a detailed analysis of the form of Joachim's exegesis and typology of history, of his teaching on the end of the world and the future, of his Christian ideal in the past and in the future, and finally, on the survival of Joachim's ideas up to the fourteenth century.

The exegetical method of Joachim, which was for the first time submitted to a thorough analysis by Grundmann, is an essential and most important feature of the system of the Calabrian prophet. For Joachim is not a prophet in the sense of a seer who receives revelations in visions; his gift of prophecy is but the gift of *spiritualis intelligentia* of the Scripture. What Joachim claimed was, that this *intelligentia* enabled him to see and to understand the hidden meanings of the sacred text and to discover in its pages the whole history of mankind: past, present, and future.

The method of allegorical exegesis that Origen began to apply on a large scale to the Scripture, was developed further in the East, and passed thence into the Latin patristic tradition.¹ Among the Latins, however, biblical exegesis underwent a still more systematic development and assumed even a higher importance than it possessed in the Greek homiletic and dogmatic tradition. Professor Grundmann, in tracing back the sources of Joachim's method, connects it with the exegetical tradition represented in the West by Ticonius the Donatist, St Augustin, Eucherius of Lyons, Junilius Africanus, Cassian, Cassiodorus, Isidore of Seville, and their later followers. Augustin's systematic exposition of the method in his *Doctrina Christiana* remained the classical text of exegesis, but it was developed and improved upon considerably by his successors. Eucherius (452) especially, in his short treatise *Formulae spiritualis intelligentiae* seems to offer the most complete model of Joachim's method. Scriptural typology, the highest product of allegorical exegesis, and the idea that, hidden under past histories or types, the Scripture contained prophetic hints for the future, were also familiar to the Latins (cf. Junilius Africanus, *Instituta regularia divinae legis*, and the anonymous *Liber de promissionibus et praedictionibus*, in Migne, *Patr. Lat.*, LI, 773 ff.). In conclusion, Joachim's exegetical method offers nothing new or essentially different from the traditional exegesis as it had developed and had been practised in both the Eastern and the Western Church. But if Joachim's method is essentially according to tradition, it presents in the application characteristics of its own, due to his

¹ H. Caplan in 'The Four Senses of Scriptural Interpretation' (*SPECULUM*, July, 1929) missed altogether the importance of Joachim's exegesis, which is not even mentioned in his study.

ability to divide and subdivide the traditional exegetical categories and genders into subgenders and subspecies, and to multiply infinitely the various meanings and types according to the requirements of his plan and of its various parts. The fertility of Joachim's imagination in the use of typology is really amazing. Undoubtedly this exegesis lacks external unity and consistency; the texts and types are bent to express different things at different times: the only unifying principle that brings together all these exegetical elaborations, sometimes superimposed one upon the other in a casual way, is their prophetic character through which Joachim forcibly extracts from biblical histories all possible parallels and allegorical justifications of his prophetic views. This essentially prophetic nature of his exegetical method distinguishes Joachim from all his predecessors who used the same method, but with primarily moral or dogmatic purposes.

The genesis of Joachim's idea of the Three Ages is studied (Chap. II) with the same accuracy and wealth of information. Here the field had already been cleared at least in part by previous studies, but Dr Grundmann's analysis of the various currents which contributed to Joachim's threefold division of human history and to the different characters that he attributed to each period is the most complete and exhaustive, as far as the traditional elements of the plan are concerned. The most important of the Three Ages is obviously the third still to come; for the age of the Father and the age of the Son are but a preparation and an imperfect image of the age of the Spirit. An important problem in this connection is that of the destiny of the Church and of the sacraments of the present dispensation in the incoming third age. The premises of Joachim and his conception that the spiritual man of the third age would know the truth without veil and receive directly from the Spirit all the charismatic gifts necessary to perfection, implied the abolition in that period of the Church as an organization for the guidance of the soul, as well as of the sacraments as channels of grace. But this did not mean that Joachim denied or even put in doubt the divine character and institution of both church and sacraments, or that he preached disobedience and rebellion. On the contrary, he recognized the full validity of the Church and all its institutions, their necessity in the present stage, and their right to claim full obedience and respect; but he did not consider them as the final forms of divine revelation, or as the only way of salvation to last forever 'usque ad consummationem sæculi.'

This implication appears more clearly in the analysis of the elements of the new spiritual life (Chap. III) such as Joachim assigned to the third age. *Contemplatio, libertas, spiritus*, are the three elements of the *Perfectio* that shall be attained. Here is the kernel of Joachim's mysticism and the point of arrival of his long prophetic journey. In the last chapter, the history of Joachimism is rather shortly outlined, with important considerations on the

connection of German Spiritualism of the thirteenth century with the Joachite current.

Grundmann's work is undoubtedly epoch-making in the studies on Joachim and Joachism; this does not mean, however, that no room was left for further analysis or for different interpretations of certain aspects of the life and thought of the Calabrian prophet. Needless to say, there are also assumptions in Grundmann's book which may strike the reader as not fully convincing: for instance, the influence of German or northern sources, which are suggested as having contributed to Joachim's philosophy of history, such as the writings of Adam of Whitehorn, of Rupert of Deutz, of Honorius of Autun, of Anselm of Havelberg, and others, might be and has been challenged. Similarities of ideas and even analogies of language are not always conclusive evidence of interdependence, for, as we have noticed in quoting the letter of Odo of Canterbury, apocalyptic ideas and hopes based on mystical interpretations and on artificial historical schemes balancing in harmonic combinations the past, the present, and the future, were then current in the various ascetic and monastic circles of Europe, and all of them derived their inspiration and their material from the same traditional sources. Like Fournier's attempt to establish a direct connection between Joachim's theology and the French anti-scholastic groups, Grundmann's assumption of the Germanic origins of Joachim's philosophy of history, accepted also by A. Dempf (*Sacrum Imperium*, 1929, pp. 229 ff.), may be rejected¹ with good reason, but the fact itself, that there is an ideal connection among these various currents of apocalyptic hopes in the various European countries, shows how important was the movement of which Joachim became the main exponent. The need of publishing the works of Joachim still in manuscript form and of a critical edition of those published in the sixteenth century had been felt from the beginning.² Under the auspices of the Institut für Kultur- und Universalgeschichte in Leipzig,

¹ *Tractatus*, ed. Buonaiuti, Introd. p. lxxi, note.

² Grundmann has made a thorough survey of the Venetian editions (I, Exkurs: *Die Venediger Drucke*, pp. 193-198). We may add to his remarks that the existence of a separate edition of the *Psalterium decem chordarum*, issued at the same time and by the same press which printed the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* and the *Psalterium* together is certain. There is a copy of this separate edition in the Harvard Library: *Psalterium Decem Cordarum Abbatis Joachim, in quo de Summa Trinitate eiusque distinctione perpulchre indagatur. De numero Psalmorum et eorum archanis ac mysticis sensibus. De Psalmodia. De modo et usu psallendi simul et psallentium.* — Venetiis, in calcographia Francisci Bindoni. — Expensis heredum Octaviani Scoti civis Modociensis, etc. Anno MDXXVII (April 27). Besides this copy, which seems very rare, the Harvard library has also:

Divini Vatis Abbatis Joachim liber Concordiae Novi ac Veteri Testamenti, Venetiis per Simonem Luere, 1519.

Expositio Magni Prophetæ Abbatis Joachim in Apocalypsim, etc., cui adjuncta sunt eiusdem Psalterium decem chordarum, etc., Venetiis, F. Bindoni, 1527.

Professor Grundmann finally decided to undertake the task of preparing the needed critical editions of the *Concordia*, the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, and of the *Psalterium*. Meanwhile, Professor E. Buonaiuti of Rome, who had already published several valuable studies on Joachim on the *Ricerche Religiose*, by agreement with Professor Grundmann took upon himself to prepare the edition of the still unpublished treatises, i.e., the *Tractatus super Quatuor Evangelia*, the *De articulis Fidei*, and the *Adversus Iudaeos*.¹

Of these, the *Tractatus super Quatuor Evangelia* has already appeared (*Fonti per la Storia d'Italia* [Istituto Storico Italiano, Rome, 1930], Vol. LXVII), with an Introduction (pp. xi–lxxx) which contains a brief but masterly presentation of the various problems concerning the life and teaching of Joachim. Of the two manuscripts of the *Tractatus*, Professor Buonaiuti has rightly used as a basis for his edition the *Antonianus* of Padua, giving in the notes the variants of the Dresden manuscript. Extensive notes accompany the text explaining the meaning of obscure passages and of historical and theological allusions, and giving references to similar passages in the other writings of Joachim. The edition leaves nothing to be desired, and if, as we are sure, the other volumes to be published by Professors Buonaiuti and Grundmann will maintain the same high standard of scholarship and of handsome printing, we shall shortly have at our disposal a *Corpus* of Joachim's works that will relieve us of any regret for the long delay in their appearance.

A new work on the Calabrian Prophet has lately been published² in France by Emmanuel Aegerter (*L'Evangile Eternel*. I, *Vie de Joachim de Flore*; II, *L'Evangile Eternel*, traduction française; Editions Rieder, Paris,

Abbatis Joachim divina prorsus in Ieremiam prophetam interpretatio, etc. Venetiis, per Bernardinum, Benatium, 1525.

The same, Coloniae apud L. Alectorium, 1577.

Abbatis Joachim Florentis Scriptus super Esaiam prophetam, etc., Venetiis, per Lazarum de Sordis, 1517.

The Widener Library also possesses the Venetian edition by the same B. Benati of the spurious writings *In librum Cirilli*; *In Apoc. de residuo statu ecclesiae*; the *Tractatus de Antichristo*, *Ioannis Parisiensis*; and *De septem statibus Ecclesiae* of Ubertinus de Casales.

¹ According to Professor Buonaiuti, to admit Joachim's authorship of other writings going under his name, outside the six mentioned above, is a very risky thing (*Gioach. d. F.*, p. 180); but Professor Grundmann inclines to include among the genuine works of Joachim other writings, such as the *Tractatus de vita et regula S. Benedicti* and probably the *De ultimis tribulationibus*; the *De virtutibus*; and the *De Vita solitaria*.

² Meanwhile, Professor Grundmann has published several articles containing further investigations on Joachim and the Joachites: 'Kleine Beiträge über Joachim von Fiore,' (*Zeitsch. f. Kirchengesch.*, 1929); 'Papstprophetien d. Mittelalters.' (*Archiv. f. Kulturgesch.*, 1928); 'Liber de Flore,' eine Schrift der Franziskaner-Spiritualen aus dem Anfang des XIV. Jahrh. (*Hist. Jahrbuch*, 1929).

1928). Aegerter, a brilliant poet and literary writer, was evidently not much concerned with the many problems of historical criticism or doctrinal sources which fill the pages of Grundmann's book. Aegerter's work, in spite perhaps of his intention, is essentially more literary than historical in character; as such, it is a remarkable sample of brilliant French prose and of vivid poetical descriptions. For his purpose, the legendary accounts of the old biographers supplied abundant material for artistic elaboration. His translations from various writings of Joachim, gathered in the second volume under the rather misleading title *L'Evangile Eternel*, give a modern freshness to the thought of the old Prophet, but unfortunately the passages chosen are not always the most representative of the special aspects of the doctrine that they are supposed to illustrate and furthermore, in no few instances, the French rendering is not close enough to the meaning of the original.

From 1928, Professor Buonaiuti began to publish at regular intervals a series of studies on Joachim in the *Ricerche Religiose* (Rome, 1928 ff.). Out of these studies rewritten with many new additions and further elaboration and out of the material already used by himself in the Introduction to the *Tractatus*, Professor Buonaiuti put together a book which, while still in manuscript form, was awarded the Edward Kennard Rand Prize of the Mediaeval Academy of America for the year 1930. It appeared in print the following year under the title *Gioacchino da Fiore, I Tempi, La Vita, Il Messaggio* (Collezione Meridionale Editrice, Rome, 1931).

As the author warns his readers in the preface, this volume is only the first part of a larger study which will cover also the whole history of Joachimism up to its last manifestations. This explains why the first part of the book, 'I Tempi,' which might be properly called an historical introduction, appears to be too long and out of proportion with the rest of the volume. The first section of this historical introduction presents in a series of separate chapters a synthesis of the political history of the Normans, Byzantines, Arabs, and finally, of the Swabians and of the Papacy in Southern Italy. The separate treatment of each has the advantage of presenting a more impressive picture of the characteristics of southern civilization under the various dominations and the contributions made by each of these elements to the final outcome of their mixture. On the other hand, it has the disadvantage of unavoidable repetitions and perhaps of less cohesion in the picture of the ensemble. In this part, the author has used the most authoritative historical works, but occasionally has made use also of original sources and documents to support views in which he disagrees with the historians.

The true justification, however, for such a long historical introduction and for its method of exposition is the fact that the historical survey is so made as to bring into light political events and factors only so far as they

have a direct or indirect connection with the spiritual, moral, and intellectual background that explains the rise at that time and in that place of Joachim's prophetic vocation. As a matter of fact, this survey and a new exhaustive study of Joachim's writings, especially of the *Tractatus*, has led Professor Buonaiuti to a new and in some degree original historical interpretation of Joachim's life and works. According to him, it is a useless task and one that leads to misunderstanding to look for a system of theology in Joachim's writings; Joachim's interest in theology was only incidental, as far as certain theological premises affected directly his interpretation of history. Joachim was primarily and essentially a prophet; we find in him 'a typical and complete renaissance of the apocalyptic spirit with which the early Christian generations were saturated. The motives behind his spiritual and intellectual activity were not theological: there was in him only a broad and bold hope of religious renovation which could enable the Church to come out of the realm of shadows and symbols and to come in possession of unveiled truth' (p. 8). Still more important is the second fundamental point of Professor Buonaiuti's historical reconstruction of the personality and thought of Joachim. The assumed dependence of Joachim upon Greek and Byzantine theological and mystical influences due to the environment is altogether denied. To Buonaiuti, Joachim appears as 'the faithful interpreter and the bold herald of that social and religious palingenesis which the Cistercian rule introduced into Latin Catholicism of the late Middle Ages' (Intr., p. xi).

The section on 'Religious conditions,' (pp. 75-120) in four short but comprehensive chapters (Byzantine traditions, Benedictine Monachism, Cistercian Reform, and Jewish groups in Calabria), provides many elements to justify the author's conclusions, radically different from those of former writers on Joachim. Byzantine religious traditions, so deeply rooted in Calabria, were thoroughly shaken during the first period¹ of the Norman rule; it was only later, after the consolidation of the kingdom, that Norman policy gave protection and lavished favors on Greek monasteries. During the early period, the upper valley of the Crati became a bulwark of Latin ecclesiasticism, and this was the environment of Joachim's life and work. The assumption that in Calabria, or in general in Southern Italy, the two great currents of eastern and western religious thought and traditions met and merged together is a commonplace. They undoubtedly met, but the process of mutual absorption, as far as religious traditions were concerned, was very slight: 'The spirit of Basilian monachism is essentially different from that of the Latin monasteries which from the eleventh century began

¹ Witness the abolition of scores of Greek monasteries and the transfer of their property to Latin monasteries; cf. Batiffol, *L'Abbaye de Rossano* (Paris, 1891), p. xxv, and Buonaiuti, *op. cit.*, p. 89.

to extend their influence over southern Italy. The traditions which directed even such monastic activities as liturgical observances and transcriptions of manuscripts were different and even opposite in the two great monastic currents, as all traditions which came from Rome were different from those coming from Byzantium.¹ In Southern Italy, the two currents came in contact, but there was no merging of them. The mountains of La Sila marked the dividing line between the two spiritual currents' (p. 84).

Benedictine monachism had lost its spiritual impetus; the contamination with secular political and economic interests and powers had made it unfit to become a new instrument of that spiritual renaissance which was the aspiration and the ideal of many religious souls. The Cistercian reform came in time not only to revive the ascetic ideal, but also as a social and economic movement of primary importance in the history of the times. After the year 1140 and the peace between king Roger II and the pope, to which Bernard of Clairvaux made no small personal contribution, Cistercian monasteries were established in Southern Italy, and it was there that Joachim received his monastic training as a Cistercian and there that he governed a Cistercian community as its abbot before the establishment of the Florentine order. The conception of a 'perfect monachism' which, in Joachim's plan of the Third Age, holds the central place, is essentially the Cistercian conception. Finally, the presence and influence of considerable Jewish groups in Calabria explains the rather important part that their expected conversion has in Joachim's plan and also the reason for his writing a short treatise *Adversus Iudaeos*.

Having thus set the historical background, Professor Buonaiuti approaches in Part II three sets of problems: (1) Concerning the life of Joachim and his relations to the political and religious powers and institutions of his time and environment; (2) Concerning the origins and development of his doctrines and his mystical teaching; (3) Concerning his attitude toward the official Church and the Papacy. On the first point Buonaiuti is more radical than his predecessors in rejecting the traditional biographies. According to his conclusions, Joachim was not from a noble or quasi-noble family, but a peasant. He calls himself 'homo agricola a iuventute mea' (*Expositio super Apocalysim*)² His pilgrimage in the Holy Land is also confirmed by another passage found by Buonaiuti in the *Tractatus super Quatuor Evangelia* (Chaps. 97-98). From authentic sources it is known

¹ Buonaiuti (p. 138) rightly remarks that modern historians have greatly exaggerated the importance of Byzantine traditions and elements in Calabria by giving too much weight to official manifestations and documents and overlooking the demographic and institutional evidence.

² This passage had been already noticed by Grundmann in *Kleine Beiträge über Joachim von Floris*, p. 154.

that about 1178 he was abbot of the monastery of Corazzo in Calabria, and that a few years later he lived for a while at the Abbey of Casamari in the Roman territory, where he had gone to submit some of his writings to Pope Lucius III. At Casamari he met Lucas, who became his amanuensis and later wrote his biography. The years which followed witnessed his estrangement from the Cistercian order and his founding of the new order of the Florentians.¹ There seems to be no doubt that by royal request Joachim travelled perhaps more than once to Palermo, and that in 1191 he was in Messina, where Richard of England and Philip Augustus of France were passing the winter on their way to the Crusade. But the narrative of the three English chroniclers Roger of Hoveden, Benedict of Peterborough, and Raoul of Coggeshal, concerning the interview of Joachim with the English king and his prophetic utterances, appear in the analysis of Professor Buonaiuti as mostly devoid of historical value (p. 156-168). Joachim's death took place March, 1202. Outside this and a few other details found in contemporary chronicles and documents, there is very little in the old biographies about the life of Joachim that can be accepted without question.²

Whatever part Joachim may have taken indirectly in the politics of his times, it seems that his main interest in them was only to discover, in political, social, and religious events, some premonitory and preparatory symptoms of the great incoming renovation. Mention of and cryptic allusions to facts and personalities of his times occur not infrequently in his writings, but always in a prophetic setting and connection. There can be no doubt that, to explain the formation of his prophetic consciousness and the results of his prophetic elaboration, the long prophetic and apocalyptic tradition which was behind him and from which he derived the formal elements of his own prophetic structure, is not enough. There is a new spirit,

¹ The Florentian rule given by Joachim to his monks is unfortunately lost. From the fact that Pope Gregory IX in 1227 forbade the Cistercians to receive in their ranks monks from the Florentian Order, it seems that the Florentian rule must have been more rigid than that of the former. Buonaiuti suggests that very likely a passage of the *Concordia* (Lib. v, 23) contains an outline of the lost rule (*op. cit.*, p. 142, note).

² The historical character of the meetings of Joachim with Pope Urban at Verona and the authenticity of both the letter of Pope Clement III to Joachim and the testament of Joachim have been questioned by Professor Buonaiuti with good reason. If the will of Joachim in which the fact that the *Concordia* had been submitted to Lucius III is mentioned is authentic, why did Joachim not mention also the supposed approvals of Urban III and of Clement III? Furthermore, at the time assigned to the meeting of Joachim with Pope Urban and the approval of the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* (1196) this latter work was not yet finished, as is evident from a passage of the same book. As a result, Professor Buonaiuti inclines to consider all these documents as apocryphal, devised by the Florentians immediately after Joachim's death (Joachim's last will is mentioned in the Lateran decree of 1215) as a measure of precaution to save the reputation of orthodoxy of their founder and their order.

a new motive, a new meaning in his vision of history and a new hope in his plan for the future, expressed many times in words like these: 'Libertas a curis mundi non potest haberi perfecte nisi in Sabbato; hoc est in tempore libertatis.'

This new spirit, according to Professor Buonaiuti, has little or nothing in common with the monastic ideals and traditions taught and followed in the Greek monasteries of Calabria; it is rather the contemplative but, at the same time, active, robust, and constructive spirit of the new Cistercian tradition. The ideal Cistercian community, self-sufficient, steeped in renunciation and mystic joy, possessed truly the 'libertas perfecta a curis mundi.' To Joachim's eyes, this was the final solution of all political, social, economic, and religious problems, the 'curae mundi' that accounted for all the evils and the unhappiness of men. The realization of such a solution was, however, conditioned upon the direct intervention of the Holy Spirit, which would impart to each man knowledge and grace to achieve perfection and to persevere in it, walking in light and truth up to the end. It was a dream, undoubtedly, but it was suggested by positive facts which were before Joachim's eyes and which made it possible not only for him, but also for others, like the prior of Canterbury, to see in them the beginning of a radical transformation of the whole religious and social order of the times. These facts were the Cistercian reform and its extraordinary success. In a few years, Cistercian monasteries sprang up everywhere; the appeal of their rigid rule seems to have been irresistible. According to the Canterbury prior, the whole world was turning to the new Testament of the *cuculla*. Now, every Cistercian monastery was not only a centre of religious reform but also a social and economic institution. Janausscheck, in his *Origines Cistercienses*, has illustrated the value and extent of the agricultural undertakings of the Cistercian monasteries of that period. As a result, the Cistercian movement, says Buonaiuti, had become 'a democratic movement which, calling to monastic life large rural masses, liberated them from feudal bondage, conferred on them an autonomous moral personality, put them to a work of extensive reclamation of land, giving at the same time to such work a spiritual value and gaining for them the favor and protection of the royal power, always eager to curtail feudal rights and abuses.'

St Bernard, himself a scion of the feudal class, was the leader of this democratic anti-feudal movement. But though he remained the personification of monastic asceticism of the twelfth century, Bernard was too much distracted by his manifold activities which involved him in all ecclesiastical and political controversies of the times. The great interpreter of the revolution contained in germ in the Cistercian rule was Joachim, 'who, coming himself from the peasant class and having perhaps escaped from feudal servitude by becoming a monk, found in the monastic *libertas* the ideal state of man in the coming age of the Spirit.'

As for Joachim's attitude toward the ecclesiastical organization and the Papacy, Professor Buonaiuti's conclusions and quotations from the sources confirm and strengthen those arrived at by Fournier and Grundmann. The latter's analysis of Joachim's exegetical method is fully accepted by Buonaiuti (*Il Messaggio*, pp. 189 ff.) who gives, however, a perhaps closer view of its function in the elaboration of Joachim's ideas: 'Considered from the point of view of the exegetical method, Joachim's originality is only quantitative. The allegorical symbolism and symmetrical typology which give an almost geometric form to his Scriptural exposition are nothing more than an organic and coherent application of the traditional principles of patristic exegesis. But if we look more closely, this boundless exegetical virtuosity of Joachim which seems to destroy altogether the significance and the real value of the sacred narrative, and discovers in it only prefigurations of imminent events destined to transform Christian society, this mechanical method of scriptural interpretation, which appears as a mere pedantic exercise on the dotted lines of a preexistent tradition, leads in the end to a highly original and personal teaching, inasmuch as there is not in Joachim any servile respect for hermeneutical completeness, but only the bold purpose of a revolutionary religious propaganda. The symbolistic orgy in which Joachim indulges becomes a kind of rite of initiation to a new, solemn, triumphal epiphany of the new gospel. Hence Joachim's works must not be considered or studied as if they contained an ordinate exposition and an organic justification of a system, but rather as the passionate appeal of a preacher¹ of conversion' (p. 194).

In his many books and essays dealing especially with early Christianity,² Professor Buonaiuti has emphasized and made almost the centre of his historical interpretation of the Christian message its 'social' character, that is to say, the conception that the Christian way of salvation was not a method of individual asceticism, but rather a high religious standard set forth as the goal of 'associated life.' Creeds and sacraments, piety and hierarchy, abstract rules and organic laws, all the various spiritual, theological, and legal elements to be found in Christianity, are all means for the realization of this essentially social character of Christian religiosity. Their vitality and usefulness last only so far as they fulfill this purpose. The Cistercian rule presents the same character of a reform not of individualistic piety but of 'associated life.' In his very remarkable and suggestive book *Il Misticismo Medievale* (Pinerolo, 1928), Professor Buonaiuti remarked: 'The

¹ Buonaiuti suggests (p. 177) that, like most of the works of St Bernard, some of Joachim's treatises, and especially the *Tractatus*, might have been first delivered as sermons to a monastic audience. The occasional allusions to liturgical celebrations seem to confirm this view.

² See especially his *Saggi sul Cristianesimo Primitivo* (Città di Castello, 1923); *Il Cristianesimo nell'Africa Romana* (Bari, 1928); *Le Origini dell'Ascetismo Cristiano* (Pinerolo, 1929).

Cistercian spirit of solidarity in work, in abnegation and prayer, their love for simplicity in the ritual, devoid of all display of wealth, and performed in a spirit of close brotherhood, their sharing equally the community tasks, so different and yet all equivalent in merit; all this not only brought about a renaissance of genuine evangelical experiences in the Cistercian cloisters, but affected also very deeply the outside world of culture, of art, and of politics' (p. 48).

No wonder then that Joachim, who derived from the Cistercian source his ideals and his inspiration, is also primarily an exponent of this type of Christian mysticism that looks for perfection in the experiences of religious associated life: 'Joachim differs from the usual type of Christian mystics because of his ever-present consciousness that there is a link which binds the spiritual destiny of the individual to that of the masses, because of his irresistible tendency to look at the problem of salvation only from the point of view of a universal palingenesis, through which collective spirituality shall and must be lifted up to its highest form of expression' (p. 197).

To Fournier's attempt to connect Joachim's theology with the school of the Porretanus represented by the *De vera philosophia* and to make of his theology the source of his mystic and apocalyptic interpretation of history, Professor Buonaiuti opposes a vigorous denial of both contentions. Joachim not only held St Bernard in great veneration, but derived from his writings principles, ideas, and suggestions which he incorporated in various ways in almost all his works. Sometimes even his phraseology and his images are those of St Bernard (*Tractatus*, Intr., p. lii). On the contrary, in the *De vera philosophia*, St Bernard is described as 'vir vitae venerabilis; cum esset bene potus in nocte cum paucissimis familiaribus suis in ospicio suo, decrevit credi quod aliquid unum numero est Pater et Filius et Spiritus Sanctus' (Fournier, *op. cit.*, p. 67). In spite of the similarities of the trinitarian doctrine of Joachim with that of the Porretanus, the attitude of Joachim against Peter Lombard springs from a different motive than that of the *De vera philosophia*. Joachim on this point is rather the continuator of St Bernard, who had been an intransigent opponent of the incipient cultural movement of the Parisian schools.

According to the abbot of Clairvaux, religious truths could not and were not to be so lowered as to make of them a dry subject of rational speculation; they were to be above all practical and normative laws of religious life. Bernard's prestige and eloquence triumphed over the fascination of Abelard's dialectics. A generation later, when Abelardian dialectics found a systematic organization in Peter Lombard's *Sentences*, Joachim, continuing the Cistercian tradition and assuming the attitude of St Bernard, attacked the trinitarian scholastic doctrine exactly for the same motive, because the scholastic formulae and their interpretation of the Trinity impaired the

pragmatic efficiency of the dogma in relation to the scheme of the Three Ages. The analogy pointed out by Buonaiuti between Joachim's subordination of dogmatic formulae to the pragmatic interests of religious life, with Tertullian's theological methodology based on the *oeconomia*, is very suggestive. Hence it is not Joachim's theology that explains his philosophy of history, but vice versa. The symmetrical succession of the Three Ages in time and space is to Joachim the empirical counterpart that explains the eternal threefold partition of the transcendent hypostases in heaven. 'The spiritual history of mankind appears to Joachim as a wonderful symphony in three movements, each developing analogous motives and themes, disposed in a marvelous symmetry and leading gradually toward the supreme revelation of the Spirit which is Light, Love, and Contemplation' (p. 218).

From his solitude of La Sila, while Europe was rent by bestial hatred and fratricidal massacres, Joachim consulted the oracle and promised to the world peace and freedom in a new and imminent dispensation of grace. Remarkable coincidence: about the time in which the Calabrian prophet closed his eyes to the light of this world, Francis of Assisi, still a worldly youth, was beginning to experience those strange dreams in which he was told that one day 'he would be a great prince.'¹

Professor Buonaiuti's book is undoubtedly the most original and most suggestive book ever published on Joachim of Flora; we feel through its pages the vibrant soul of the old Prophet and at the same time we are led step by step to the full comprehension of his historical personality and of his teaching by the most rigorous critical method of scientific investigation.

That the revolutionary religious ideas and hopes represented by Joachim's writings found no little response even in the secular literature and in both the popular and the learned poetry of the thirteenth century, was already well known.² A full treatment of this subject is now to be found in a new book by Professor Eugene Anitchkof, *Joachim de Flore et les milieux courtois* (Rome and Paris, 1931). We leave to scholars with competent knowledge of Romance literature and philology the task of passing judgment upon the soundness of Professor Anitchkof's rather impressive and

¹ In his *Profile of St Francis of Assisi* (Rome, 1900), Professor Buonaiuti called attention to St Francis' attitude towards the crusades, which constituted an implicit disapproval of those military expeditions. St Francis felt that the Saracens were to be converted by preaching to them Christian religion, and, as a matter of fact, he himself with several brethren undertook the mission of their conversion, which, however, proved unfruitful. This Franciscan pacifist tradition may be traced back to Joachim, who wrote in the *Expos. In Apoc.* (164) 'forte futurum est ut apud illud [the Saracen people] Christiani praevalent praedicando, magis quam proeliando, usque pene ad defectum et interitionem perducant.'

² Rousselot had already remarked concerning Joachim's influence: 'on l'entend non seulement dans les chants des poètes franciscains de l'époque, mais aussi et pendant longtemps dans ceux des diseurs en rimes et des fidèles d'amour' (*Hist. de l'Ev.*, p. 173).

sometimes even startling conclusions regarding the wide expansion of Joachite influences over 'les milieux courtois.' But as far as Joachim's personality and doctrines are concerned (they form the subject of almost half of this book), we regret to say that this work seems to mark rather a step backward from the advanced positions reached through the studies of Grundmann and Buonaiuti.

It is evident that the author is not so familiar with theological problems as he is with literary sources and history; otherwise, he could not have written among others such a statement as this: 'C'est pour sauver l'existence distincte des Personnes [in the Trinity], thèse si chère aux Manichéens, que le principe de l'émanation successive adopté par le Montanisme est devenu un des concepts les mieux ancrés de la théologie basilienne,' a puzzling sentence in which Manicheism, Montanism, and the trinitarian doctrine of St Basil are brought together in a common effort to save the distinction of the three divine Persons through a system of successive emanations! Similar statements couched in a vague and theologically incorrect language, either fraught with questionable meaning or devoid of real significance, abound in this book.

Eastern historians show a great propensity to explain the origins and development of the mediaeval heretical movements in the west merely through eastern influences and propaganda, overlooking the western anti-sacerdotal movements of the period of the Investiture conflict, fostered up to a certain point even by the Roman reform party.¹ No wonder, therefore, that Professor Anitchkof sees everywhere, even in the monastic institutions of Calabria, living traces of Manicheism, of a Neo-Montanism of eastern importation, and a mixture of other elements of which what he calls 'les idées basiliennes' or 'l'esprit basilien' seems to be the synthesis.

The hasty way by which the author reaches such conclusions is rather disconcerting. For instance, an evidence of Manichean influence is found in the fact that Basilian monachism imposed renunciation of marriage. The author indeed remarks, 'tout monachisme, par le fait seul qu'il défend d'avoir commerce avec les femmes, se rapproche du manichéisme, dont l'un des principes fondamentaux est la négation du mariage' (p. 66). But this rapprochement of monachism and manicheism on account of celibacy is far fetched. The origin of the Christian ascetic tendency which glorified virginity is older than Manicheism; moreover, it did not imply a condemnation of marriage in principle as Manicheism did, and on the other hand, it imposed upon those who freely adopted ascetic life not only celibacy but absolute chastity and purity of body and mind. The Manicheans, Professor

¹ It is fair to say that, on this point of eastern heretical propaganda in the West, Professor Anitchkof's book contains many very useful data not usually found in western authors.

Anitchkof remarks, 'allaient si loin dans cette voie qu'ils préféraient le concubinat, et on trouve dans leurs écrits la glorification des enfants naturels' (p. 66). To prove that this Manichean tradition is found in the Calabrian Greek monastic environment of Merkurion, the author recalls a passage of the life of St Nilus of Rossano, afterward founder of the monastery of Grottaferrata near Rome, in which it is told how Nilus in his youth entered into a marriage or a liaison — it is not clear which — with a girl who gave birth to a child; but when Nilus felt the call of the monastic life he abandoned woman and child and fled from the region. Now, what does this prove? Apart from the fact that this is an episode not uncommon in hagiographic tradition — it goes back to Buddha — does this mean that the monks of the Merkurion looked with favor upon concubinage and glorified bastards? Whether or not Manichean influences affected early Christian monachism is a different question, but the monks of the Merkurion in the eleventh and twelfth century did not need new Manichean influences to appreciate the value of celibacy and renunciation.

No more convincing are the other 'deux points essentiels' mentioned by Professor Anitchkof as evidence of Manichean influences on the Merkurion: 'Les Manichéens étaient tout aussi strictement végétariens qu'on l'était au Merkurion' and 'nous savons que Mani tenait particulièrement à cet art de la calligraphie dans lequel on excellait au Merkurion' (p. 67). When one reflects that these statements apply to monastic life and traditions of the twelfth century, when there was in existence an hagiographic literature many centuries old and still fertile in new productions, in which the theme of ascetic vegetarianism had been worked out in all possible variations,¹ and when one considers that the calligraphic ability of the Merkurion had behind it many centuries of monastic scriptoria and of individual activity of monastic scribes, to speak of vegetarianism and of calligraphy as denoting new Manichean influences in the twelfth century is beyond all understanding.

Neither is the suggestion of Neo-montanistic influences on the Merkurion more successful. Apart from the so-called 'Basilian trinitarian doctrine' which has nothing to do with Montanism, Professor Anitchkof finds a definite montanistic trace in the fact that the gift of prophecy recurs as a

¹ Perhaps one more evidence of the fact that Greek monastic influence affected Joachim very little is his criticism of those monks who denied the use of meat even to sick brethren, as against the provision made to this effect by the Benedictine rule: 'Quid autem clementius quam quod ait Sanctus Benedictus . . . Dandas esse carnes infirmis, quas Graeci negant, indifferenter, quamvis quidam Graecorum dicant magis esse ex usu maiorum quam ex regula sancti Basilii esse aegrotantibus carnum fercula interdicta?' *Concordia*, v, 48; Buonaiuti, *Gioacchino da Fiore*, p. 142; also p. 84, where the difference between the spirit of Greek ascetism of St Nilus and that of the Benedictine Rule and of the *Charta charitatis* of the Cistercians is set forth.

constant feature in the lives of saintly abbots and monks of that region. Apart again from the fact that certain analogies between spiritual movements such as the Church experiences from time to time are easily explained by the recurrence of similar situations and by the use of the same religious sources, Eastern and western hagiographic literature, ancient and modern as well, show that the gift of prophecy is seldom lacking in the lives of saints. In one way or another, most saints have prophesied, if nothing else, the approach of their death. The gift of prophecy forms one of the distinctive characteristics of 'privileged souls' who have attained a closer union with God. That prophecy is a special gift of the Spirit is a notion as old as Christianity itself. To seek in it a survival or a direct connection with Montanism is not necessary.

We like to think that Professor Anitchkof has been more fortunate — as undoubtedly he was better prepared — in handling the other and primary object of his study, that is to say, the influence of Joachim's teaching on secular literature and poetry of the thirteenth century. The author's learning and his competence on this field are beyond doubt. If his conclusions are accepted even in part, his book will have performed a great service to literary history and indirectly to religious history by providing us with the most valuable evidence, far-reaching in its implications, of the broad influence exercised by Joachim's teaching not only over ascetic and religious circles, but in the world at large among laymen and secular persons.

How far and how soon this influence spread is still a question that perhaps needs further investigation. Professor Grundmann thinks that Joachim's prophetic reputation did not go very far outside Calabria during his lifetime. This opinion, however, is shown to be at least too conservative by Francesco Foberti, in a recent article ('Nuovi Studi su Gioacchino da Fiore,' in *Ricerche Religiose*, January, 1932) in which, besides several proposed corrections in Joachim's chronology, passages are quoted from contemporary chronicles and documents witnessing the fact that Joachim's fame spread very soon not only through Italy, but also in Germany and even in Poland.

Dr Ernst Benz's 'Joachim-Studien' (*Zeitschrift f. Kirchengeschichte*, 1931) promise to be a valuable addition to Joachimite literature. The first essay (the only one published to date), under the title 'Die Kategorien der religiösen Geschichtsdeutung Joachims,' contains a subtle analysis of the premises and implications of Joachim's theology of history. The principle of development or evolution by stages (Law, Grace, Love) which is at the basis of the whole system is considered also in relation to the history of monachism, where it assumes the form of an organic development of Christian ethics (the Gospel according to the letter, the teaching of the Apostles, and the teaching of the Fathers, including the monastic rules), of the social organization (three periods, of slaves, freemen, and friends), and finally, of

revelation as a whole. The problem of the Church, the Sacraments, and the Papacy in the new dispensation, destined to disappear because the *ordo spiritualis* would take their place, is the truly revolutionary doctrine of Joachim. For, by prophesying the imminent coming of an age of pure evangelic morals, he provided his contemporaries with a kind of standard by which they could judge and criticize the papal Church. Furthermore, he gave to the monastic orders the right to consider themselves as the bearers of the spiritual Church, to affirm their independence from the Church of the Pope, nay, to consider it as the anti-Christ. In other words, the attitude toward the Church of the later Joachites, was contained in germ in Joachim's own teaching. This is true enough, but it is not altogether useless to remark that, on one hand, anti-papal and anti-sacerdotal currents were older than Joachimism and on the other hand Joachim admonished his followers that obedience is worth more than sacrifice, and that the ecclesiastical authorities were always to be obeyed, even when one had received directly the light of the Spirit.¹

Another useful addition to Joachite studies and the first to be published in the English language as a direct contribution to them, is Henry Bett's *Joachim of Flora* (London: Methuen and Co., 1931) a new volume of the series, *Great Mediaeval Churchmen*, edited by L. E. Binns. The first three chapters (pp. 1-66) deal with Joachim's life, writings, and doctrines. They are based mostly on Grundmann's work. Buonaiuti's edition of the *Tractatus* reached the author too late to be utilized save in a few notes, and his previous articles in *Ricerche Religiose* seem to have escaped Mr Bett's attention. His work, however, is remarkable for clearness of exposition and scholarly information as well as for some interesting additions to the historical background of Joachim's life and thought. A few inaccuracies are noticeable. To use the term 'Kingdom of the Two Sicilies' for the twelfth century is an anachronism. The Empress Constance is called (p. 14) a niece of king William II, while on the opposite page it is rightly said that she was the daughter of Roger II, which makes her the aunt of William. There is some doubt whether Raynerius the Cardinal is identical with Raynerius the Florentian disciple of Joachim (p. 13, note). On page 26, the remark is made that Joachim was a lover of music, which may have been true, but the evidence given for this statement is the famous passage of the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*: 'Qui vere monachus est nihil reputat suum nisi citharam.' As Professor Buonaiuti has remarked in the *Tractatus* (Intr. p. xiii, note 3), this passage was first quoted by Tocco isolated from its context

¹ It is true, however, that Joachim, with a great deal of optimism, was convinced that as soon as the new *Ecclesia spiritualis* would appear 'quasi de abditis presepium locis' the pope would open his arms; 'accipiet eum in ulnas fidei et dilectionis suae et pronuntiabit in eo esse illum vivificantem spiritum in quo est salus mundi' (*Tractatus*, ed. Buonaiuti, p. 86).

and later was chosen by Sabatier as one of the many mottos prefacing the various chapters of his *Life of St Francis*. In the context, however, the word *cithara* is not used by Joachim in its usual meaning of a musical instrument, but figuratively for 'operationem Spiritus Sancti in qua resonant tres chor-dae generales.'

The last four chapters of the book contain a fair account of the Joachite movement in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries. Here also, there is no lack of information and sufficient accuracy, but the chapters strike the reader more as a series of essays on episodes or personalities, with no attempt to present a unified and consistent view of Joachite history. The simple mention of Joachite influences on the Roman tribune Cola di Rienzo deserved a fuller treatment. We have now available an admirable edition of Cola's writings and letters (*Briefwechsel des Cola di Rienzo*, hrsgbn. v. Konrad Burdach u. Paul Piur, Berlin, 1912-1929) and furthermore, a brilliant and scholarly biography by the same P. Piur (*Cola di Rienzo: Darstellung seines Lebens und seines Geistes*, Vienna, 1931), in which the spiritual background of the Tribune 'miles Spiritus Sancti et Amicus Dei' is thoroughly analyzed and the full extent of his Joachite ideas carefully weighed. Such as it is, however, Mr Bett's book will be very useful to English readers, and will take with advantage the place of Coulton's short account of Joachim among the 'Precursors of St Francis' (*Five Centuries of Religion*, II, 114 ff.) and of the longer but obsolete account by Lea in his *History of the Inquisition*.

To Joachism and the Joachite, due consideration is given by Miss Vida Scudder in her new book *The Franciscan Adventure: A study of the first Hundred Years of the Order of St Francis* (New York: Dutton, 1931). Being above all 'a study of the social implications in Franciscan history in the light of contemporary thinking,' Miss Scudder's work could not fail to notice the appealing suggestion of Professor Buonaiuti about the social motives behind Joachim's apocalyptic message. But the little space which the author could give to this subject, which is outside the chronological limits of her study, prevented her from making a more extensive use of the social and economic implications of the Cistercian movement in general and of Joachim's ideas in particular.

Apart from the pages dealing with Joachim and Joachism, which in their brevity are excellent and suggestive, Miss Scudder's work is a new and in many ways original historical interpretation of a conflict which assumed a special form among the early Franciscans, but which is also at the bottom of our social organization and our traditions. Social and economic problems, which are the inevitable result of our social and economic structure, have always been present and always have provoked conflicts, revolutions, and reactions. But, as Miss Scudder wisely remarks, 'the experiments of the

Christian social conscience, whether frustrated or triumphant, are entangled both with theological speculation and with personal religion.' This was especially true in that remote period, in which the young order of St Francis, after a long and dramatic struggle, had to sacrifice the ideals of its founder upon the altar of an intransigent ecclesiasticism. The historian of today, however, does not run the risk so much of minimizing the importance of the social implications and motives of movements like the Franciscan to the advantage of theological history, as he does that of going to the other extreme and making of the social and economic aspect of religious history the central and essential part of his historical reconstruction, thus overlooking the theological side. Miss Scudder is always aware of this danger, and even if, in the attempt to interpret Franciscan history in the light of modern thinking, she sometimes is carried a little too far in her conclusions, she never really loses sight of the essentially religious content and significance of the historical process, ideas, and aspirations that she so well analyzes with keen critical sense and with a remarkable wealth of information.

The same sense of measure and the appreciation of true historical values which have guided her in the long analysis of those hundred years of spirited conflicts in the Franciscan ranks, also mark her final conclusions as to the value of that historical experience in the light of our own needs and our own experience. After all, says Miss Scudder, 'it is in the sphere of private life that the old friars speak with most appealing inspiration and warning. The discussion, for instance, about the Poor Use was not wasted. They helped to maintain in the Christian world that delicate self-control towards the things of sense which was as desperately needed then as now. . . . No one has ever been able to define the Simple Life, which is a dry subjective affair and has its complications, but we may at least ponder the certitude of the Little Brothers that it is no mere matter of intellectual disposition, but involves outward standards too' (p. 386-387).

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